Eidgenössische Technische Hochschule Zürich

Funktionentheorie

Autumn Semester 2026

Lecture Notes

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References

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Funktionentheorie

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Autumn Semester 2026

1 Introdcution

Lec 1

1.1 Motivation

Consider the following example. On $\mathbb{R}$ it is not too difficult to construct a function f that is differentiable n times but not differentiable $n+1$ times. For example,

$$f(x) = \begin{cases} x^2 \sin(\frac{1}{x^2}) & x \neq 0, \\ 0 & x = 0 \end{cases}.$$

This function is differentiable but the derivative is not continuous. Integrating, we find a function that is differentiable twice but not three times. In fact, we can construct a function that is differentiable n times but not $n+1$ times for any $n \in \mathbb{N}$ using this method.

In contrast, we'll see that if $f : \mathbb{C} \to \mathbb{C}$ is differentiable once, then it is differentiable infinitely many times.

Another example is that for real numbers, there are functions $f : \mathbb{R} \to \mathbb{R}$ which are infinitely differentiable but not analytic. I.e. the Taylor series at some point x_0 exists, but does not converge to the function in any neighborhood of x_0. For example,

$$x \longmapsto (x) = \begin{cases} e^{-\frac{1}{x^2}} & x \neq 0, \\ 0 & x = 0 \end{cases},$$

where all derivatives are zero so the Taylor series is identically zero.

In contrast, we'll see that a differentiable function $f : \mathbb{C} \to \mathbb{C}$ has a power series representation. So differentiability is equivalent to analyticity.

A further comparison is that there are many examples of functions $f : \mathbb{R} \to \mathbb{R}$ which are C^∞ and bounded, for example

$$f(x) = \sin(x).$$

In contrast, we'll see that if $f : \mathbb{C} \to \mathbb{C}$ is bounded and differentiable, then it is constant.

The robustness of this theory can be used for applications which seem to have nothing to do with complex analysis. Probably the most used examples are evaluating real integrals.

$$\int_0^\infty \cos(t^2)\mathrm{d}t = \int_0^\infty \sin(t^2)\mathrm{d}t = \frac{\sqrt{2\pi}}{4}.$$

Another famous example is the prime number theorem, which states that the number of primes less than x is asymptotic to $\frac{x}{\log(x)}$.

Another classic is to consider a non-zero polynomial $f(x) \in \mathbb{C}[x]$. Then the Fundamental Theorem of Algebra states that f has a zero in $\mathbb{C}$.

Lastly, consider

$$r_4(n) = \#\{(x,y,z,w) \in \mathbb{Z}^4 : x^2+y^2+z^2+w^2 = n\}.$$

Lagrange proved that every positive integer has such a representation, namely $r_4(n) \geq 1$. Jacobi later proved that

$$r_4(n) = 8 \sum_{d|n;4\nmid d} d.$$

1.2 Review of Complex Numbers

Recall that the complex numbers are given as

$$\mathbb{C} = \{x + iy : x, y \in \mathbb{R}\},$$

where $i^2 = -1$. We can embed $\mathbb{R}$ into $\mathbb{C}$ via $x \mapsto x + i0$. We also defined

Definition 1.1: Real and Imaginary Parts

For $z = x+iy \in \mathbb{C}$, we define the REAL PART $\Re(z) = x$ and the IMAGINARY PART $\Im(z) = y$.

Furthermore, the COMPLEX CONJUGATE is defined as

$$\overline{z} = x - iy.$$

From this it follows that

Lemma 1.2:

For $z = x + iy \in \mathbb{C}$, we have

$$z \in \mathbb{R} \Leftrightarrow z = \overline{z} \qquad z \in i\mathbb{R} \Leftrightarrow z = -\overline{z}.$$

$\mathbb{C}$ can also be represented by pairs of real numbers in $\mathbb{R}^2$. For example $z = (x,y), w = (u,v) \in \mathbb{R}^2$ where

$$z = w \Leftrightarrow x = u, y = v.$$

Addition can be defined in both notations as

$$z + w = (x+u, y+v) \quad z + w = (x+w) + i(y+v).$$

Multiplication was a bit more cumbersome. Using the definition of i, we have

$$\begin{aligned} z \cdot w &= (x+iy)(u+iv) \\ &= xu + i^2yv + i(xv+yu) \\ &= (xu - yv) + i(xv+yu). \end{aligned}$$

So in the pair representation, multiplication is given by

$$(x,y) \cdot (u,v) = (xu - yv, xv + yu).$$

Note that in the pair representation,

$$i \leftrightarrow (0,1) \quad \text{and} \quad 1 \leftrightarrow (1,0).$$

The good thing about the pair notation, $(\mathbb{R}^2, +, \cdot)$ satisfies

1. $(\mathbb{R}^2, +)$ is an abelian group with identity $(0,0)$
2. $(\mathbb{R}^2 \setminus \{(0,0)\}, \cdot)$ is an abelian group with identity $(1,0)$
3. The distributive law holds: $z_1(z_2+z_3) = z_1z_2 + z_1z_3$

Together, these properties make $(\mathbb{R}^2, +, \cdot)$ a field. So the complex numbers with the above addition and multiplication form a field.

The additive inverse of $z = (x,y)$ is given by $-z = (-x,-y)$. The multiplicative inverse of $0 \neq z = (x,y)$ is given by

$$z^{-1} = \frac{\overline{z}}{|z|^2} = \frac{(x,-y)}{x^2+y^2} = \left(\frac{x}{x^2+y^2}, -\frac{y}{x^2+y^2}\right).$$

Here, $|z| \in \mathbb{R}$ is the MODULUS or NORM of z, defined as

$$|z| = \sqrt{x^2+y^2}.$$

We can also consider the POLAR COORDINATES of z. Any point on the plane $\mathbb{R}^2$ can be represented by a distance r from the origin and an angle θ from the positive x-axis. Here,

$$z = r(\cos(\theta) + i\sin(\theta)) = re^{i\theta}.$$

Beware that the representation is not unique, since θ can be replaced by $\theta + 2\pi k$ for any $k \in \mathbb{Z}$, unless we restrict θ to a certain interval. The standard is to take $\theta \in (-\pi, \pi]$. θ is called the ARGUMENT of z, denoted $\arg(z)$, and r is the modulus $|z|$. For the argument in $(-\pi, \pi]$, we write $\mathrm{Arg}(z)$ and call it PRINCIPAL ARGUMENT.

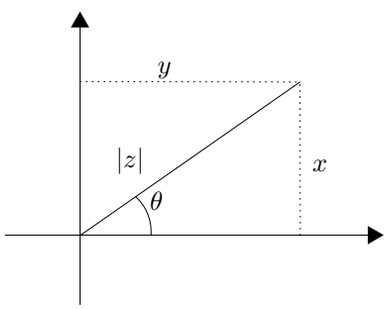


Figure 1: Polar coordinates of a complex number z

Lec 2

The principal argument of $z = x + iy \neq 0$ we have

$$\mathrm{Arg}(z) = \begin{cases} \arcsin(\frac{y}{|z|}) & x \geq 0 \\ \pi - \arcsin(\frac{y}{|z|}) & x < 0, y \geq 0 \\ -\pi - \arcsin(\frac{y}{|z|}) & x < 0, y < 0 \end{cases}.$$

Here, for $t \in [-1,1]$, $\arcsin(t)$ is the unique number u in $[-\frac{\pi}{2}, \frac{\pi}{2}]$ such that $\sin(u) = t$.

Notice, that

$$\arg(z^-1) = -\arg(z) \quad \text{and} \quad \arg(zw) = \arg(z) + \arg(w).$$

But, it is not always the case if we use the principal argument instead. For example

$$\mathrm{Arg}(-\frac{1}{2}) = \pi \neq -\mathrm{Arg}(-2) = -\pi.$$

Lemma 1.3:

Let $z, w \in \mathbb{C}$. Then

- $|z| = 0 \Leftrightarrow z = 0$
- $||z| - |w|| \leq |z+w| \leq |z| + |w|$
- $|zw| = |z||w|$
- $|\overline{z}| = |z|$
- $|\Re(z)| \leq |z|$ and $|\Im(z)| \leq |z|$

If we have two numbers $z_1 = r_1e^{i\theta_1}$ and $z_2 = r_2e^{i\theta_2}$ in polar form, then

$$z_1z_2 = r_1r_2e^{i(\theta_1+\theta_2)}.$$

$\mathbb{C}$ also has a representation in terms of 2×2 matrices. For $z = a + ib$, let

$$Z = \begin{pmatrix} a & -b \\ b & a \end{pmatrix}.$$

If $w = c + id$, then

$$ZW = \begin{pmatrix} ac-bd & -(bc+ad) \\ bc+ad & ac-bd \end{pmatrix}.$$

So we can do the multiplication of complex numbers using matrix multiplication.

We can also write the matrix representation as

$$Z = \Re(z)\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} + \Im(z)\begin{pmatrix} 0 & -1 \\ 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}.$$

In polar form, $z = re^{i\theta}$, we have

$$Z = \begin{pmatrix} r & 0 \\ 0 & r \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} \cos(\theta) & -\sin(\theta) \\ \sin(\theta) & \cos(\theta) \end{pmatrix}.$$

Notice that the second matrix lives in $SO(2)$, the group of rotations in $\mathbb{R}^2$.

1.3 Notations from Analysis

We like to recall some definitions from analysis regarding open and closed sets.

Definition 1.4: Discs

The OPEN DISC of radius r centered at z is the set

$$D_r(z) = \{w \in \mathbb{C} : |w - z| < r\}.$$

The CLOSED DISC of radius r centered at z is the set

$$\overline{D}_r(z) = \{w \in \mathbb{C} : |w - z| \leq r\}.$$

The boundary circle is the set

$$C_r(z) = \{w \in \mathbb{C} : |w - z| = r\}.$$

Definition 1.5: Connected and Disconnected Sets

A subset $A \subset \mathbb{C}$ is called DISCONNECTED if there exists two open sets $U, V \subset \mathbb{C}$ such that

$$U \cap V = \varnothing, \quad A \cap U \neq \varnothing, \quad A \cap V \neq \varnothing, \quad A \subset U \cup V.$$

A set is called CONNECTED if it is not disconnected. A connected open subset $U \neq \varnothing$ of $\mathbb{C}$ is called a REGION or a DOMAIN.

1.4 Holomorphic Functions

We now want to define what it means for a complex function to be differentiable.

Definition 1.6: Holomorphic functions

Let $\Omega \subset \mathbb{C}$ be an open and $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ a function.

f is called DIFFERENTIABLE or HOLOMORPHIC at $z_0 \in \Omega$ if

$$\lim_{z \to z_0, z \neq z_0} \frac{f(z) - f(z_0)}{z - z_0} = \lim_{h \to 0, h \neq 0} \frac{f(z+h) - f(z)}{h}.$$

If f is differentiable $\forall z \in \Omega$, it is holomorphic on Ω. If $\Omega = \mathbb{C}$ and f is holomorphic on $\mathbb{C}$ then f is called ENTIRE.

The value of the limit is denoted by $f'(z_0)$.

Example 1.7:

Consider $f : \mathbb{C} \to \mathbb{C}, z \mapsto z$. Then f is entire. Indeed,

$$\lim_{h \to 0, h \neq 0} \frac{f(z+h) - f(z)}{h} = \lim_{h \to 0, h \neq 0} \frac{z + h - z}{h} = 1.$$

Proposition 1.8: Properties of holomorphic functions

1. Let $\mathcal{H}(\Omega)$ be the set of holomorphic functions on Ω. Then $\mathcal{H}(\Omega)$ is a vector space over $\mathbb{C}$.

Here, $O : z \mapsto 0$ is the 0-element.

2. If $f, g \in \mathcal{H}(\Omega)$ then so is $f \cdot g$. Also, we have

$$(fg)'(z_0) = f'(z_0)g(z_0) + g'(z_0)f(z_0).$$

3. Lastly if $g(z_0) \neq 0$, for any $z_0 \in \Omega$, then f/g is holomorphic at z_0 and

$$\left(\frac{f}{g}\right)'(z_0) = \frac{f'(z_0)g(z_0) - g'(z_0)f(z_0)}{g(z_0)^2}.$$

4. If $f : \Omega \to U$ and $g : U \to \mathbb{C}$ are holomorphic, then $g \circ f$ is holomorphic and

$$(g \circ f)'(z_0) = g'(f(z_0))f'(z_0).$$

Proof. The proof is the same as in real analysis. We will thus only show the proof of the last statement.

Let $z_0 \in \Omega$ and let $f(z_0) = w_0 \in U$. Consider

$$F : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}, G : U \to \mathbb{C}.$$

where

$$F(z) = \begin{cases} \frac{f(z)-f(z_0)}{z-z_0} & z \neq z_0 \\ f'(z_0) & z = z_0 \end{cases}, \quad G(z) = \begin{cases} \frac{g(w)-g(w_0)}{w-w_0} & w \neq w_0 \\ g'(w_0) & w = w_0 \end{cases}.$$

Since f and g are holomorphic, F and G are continuous. Hence, $G \circ f$ is continuous at z_0.[1] Now,

$$\frac{(g \circ f)(z) - (g \circ f)(z_0)}{z - z_0} = \frac{g(f(z)) - g(f(z_0))}{f(z) - f(z_0)}.$$

Using $f(z_0) = w_0$ we can write this as

$$\frac{g(f(z)) - g(w_0)}{f(z) - w_0} \cdot \frac{f(z) - f(z_0)}{z - z_0} = G(f(z))F(z).$$

Note that if $f(z) = w_0$ we get that $F(z) = \frac{w_0 - f(z_0)}{z - z_0} = 0$. Hence, taking the limit $z \to z_0$ and using continuity, we get that

$$\begin{aligned} \lim_{z \to z_0, z \neq z_0} \frac{(g \circ f)(z) - (g \circ f)(z_0)}{z - z_0} &= \lim_{z \to z_0, z \neq z_0} G(f(z))F(z) \\ &= G(f(z_0))F(z_0) \\ &= g'(f(z_0))f'(z_0). \end{aligned}$$

□

Remark

If $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ is differentiable at $z_0 \in \Omega$, then $\exists$ a complex number $c \in \mathbb{C}$ such that

$$f(z) = f(z_0) + c(z - z_0) + o(|z - z_0|) \quad \text{as } z \to z_0.$$

Here, for c we write $f'(z_0)$.

Example 1.9: Polynomials are entire

Using $f(z) = z$ entire and Proposition 1.8, we get that any polynomial is entire. If $g(z) = z^n$, then

$$g'(z) = nz^{n-1}.$$

Example 1.10: Real and complex differentiability

Let $f(z) = \overline{z}$. Then

$$\frac{f(z_0 + h) - f(z_0)}{h} = \frac{\overline{z_0 + h} - \overline{z_0}}{h} = \frac{\overline{h}}{h}.$$

If we choose $h = t, t \in \mathbb{R}$, then $\frac{\overline{h}}{h} = 1$. If we choose $h = it, t \in \mathbb{R}$, then $\frac{\overline{h}}{h} = -1$. Hence, the limit does not exist and f is not holomorphic.

If we look at f as a function from $\mathbb{R}^2 \to \mathbb{R}^2$, then $\tilde{f}(x, y) = (x, -y)$. Then $\tilde{f}$ is differentiable in the real sense and the Jacobian is given by

$$D\tilde{f}(x, y) = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 \end{pmatrix}.$$

Recall, that a function $f : \mathbb{R}^2 \to \mathbb{R}^2, (x, y) \mapsto (u, v)$ is differentiable at (x_0, y_0) if there exists a linear map $L : \mathbb{R}^2 \to \mathbb{R}^2$ such that

$$\lim_{(x,y) \to (x_0, y_0)} \frac{|f(x, y) - f(x_0, y_0) - L(x - x_0, y - y_0)|}{|(x - x_0, y - y_0)|} = 0.$$

The linear map L is unique and called the DIFFERENTIAL Df. In the standard basis, the linear map L has a matrix representation which is called the JACOBIAN of f. It is given by

$$Jf(x_0, y_0) = \begin{pmatrix} \frac{\partial u}{\partial x}(x_0, y_0) & \frac{\partial u}{\partial y}(x_0, y_0) \\ \frac{\partial v}{\partial x}(x_0, y_0) & \frac{\partial v}{\partial y}(x_0, y_0) \end{pmatrix}.$$

[1] f is differentiable at z_0 so continuous at z_0.

Recall from linear algebra, that we can view $\mathbb{C}$ as a vector space over $\mathbb{C}$ with dimension 1 with basis $\{1\}$. Alternatively we can view $\mathbb{C}$ as a vector space over $\mathbb{R}$ with dimension 2 with basis $\{1, i\}$.

A map $T : \mathbb{C} \to \mathbb{C}$ is $\mathbb{C}$-linear if $Tz = \lambda z$ for some $\lambda \in \mathbb{C}$. It is $\mathbb{R}$-linear if

$$T(x + iy) = xT(1) + yT(i) \quad \forall x, y \in \mathbb{R}.$$

Using $x = \frac{z+\overline{z}}{2}$ and $y = \frac{z-\overline{z}}{2i}$, we can write

$$T(z) = \underbrace{\frac{T(1) - iT(i)}{2}}_{:=\lambda} z + \underbrace{\frac{T(1) + iT(i)}{2}}_{:=\mu} \overline{z}.$$

Since T is linear, the coefficient of $\overline{z}$ must be 0. So every $\mathbb{C}$-linear map is $\mathbb{R}$-linear if we set $\mu = 0$. However an $\mathbb{R}$-linear map is only $\mathbb{C}$-linear if $\mu = 0$, so

$$T(i) = iT(1).$$

If $T(1) = a + ib$ and $T(i) = c + id$, then the condition $T(i) = iT(1)$ is equivalent to

$$a = d \quad \text{and} \quad b = -c.$$

Every $\mathbb{R}$-linear map $\mathbb{R}^2 \to \mathbb{R}^2$ is given by a 2×2 matrix $\begin{pmatrix} a & c \\ b & d \end{pmatrix}$. If this $\mathbb{R}$-linear map is also $\mathbb{C}$-linear, then on the matrix we have $a = d$ and $b = -c$. Hence, the matrix is of the form

$$\begin{pmatrix} a & b \\ -b & a \end{pmatrix}.$$

Lec 3

1.5 Cauchy-Riemann equations

Let $f : \mathbb{C} \to \mathbb{C}$ be a holomorphic function at $z = z_0$. If we write $f(x+iy) = u(x, y) + iv(x, y)$. If we view f as a map from $\mathbb{R}^2 \to \mathbb{R}^2$, if f is differentiable at z_0, then

$$f'(z_0) = \lim_{h \to 0} \frac{f(z_0 + h) - f(z_0)}{h} = \lim_{z \to z_0} \frac{f(z) - f(z_0)}{z - z_0}.$$

The limit exists and is independent of the way we approach z_0. In particular, we can approach z_0 along the line $z = x + iy_0$ and let $x \to x_0$. Thus,

$$\begin{aligned} f'(z_0) &= \lim_{x \to x_0} \frac{f(x + iy_0) - f(x_0 + iy_0)}{x - x_0} \\ &= \lim_{x \to x_0} \frac{u(x - x_0) - u(x_0, y_0)}{x - x_0} + i \lim_{x \to x_0} \frac{v(x, y_0) - v(x_0, y_0)}{x - x_0} \\ &= u_x(z_0) + iv_x(z_0). \end{aligned}$$

We can also approach z_0 along the line $z = x_0 + iy$ and let $y \to y_0$. Doing the same calculation, we find

$$f'(z_0) = v_y(z_0) - iu_y(z_0).$$

Combining the equations, we find the Cauchy-Riemann equations

Theorem 1.11: Cauchy-Riemann equations

For a function $f : \mathbb{C} \to \mathbb{C}$, $f(z) = u(z) + v(z)$, if f is holomorphic at z_0, then

$$u_x(z_0) = v_y(z_0), \quad v_x(z_0) = -u_y(z_0).$$

Definition 1.12:

We define the operator

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial z} := \frac{1}{2}\left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x} - i\frac{\partial}{\partial y}\right)$$

and

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial \overline{z}} := \frac{1}{2}\left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x} + i\frac{\partial}{\partial y}\right)$$

Proposition 1.13:

If f is holomorphic at z_0, $f(z) = u + iv$, then

$$\frac{\partial f}{\partial \overline{z}} = 0,$$

and

$$f'(z_0) = \frac{\partial}{\partial z} f(z_0) = 2\frac{\partial u}{\partial z}(z_0).$$

If we write $f(z) = \tilde{f}(x, y)$ as a function from $\mathbb{R}^2$ to $\mathbb{R}^2$, then $\tilde{f}$ is differentiable with Jacobian

$$J_{\tilde{f}}(x_0, y_0) = \begin{pmatrix} u_x & u_y \\ v_x & v_y \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} u_x & u_y \\ -u_y & u_x \end{pmatrix}.$$

Furthermore, $\det J_f = |f'(z_0)|^2 = u_x^2 + u_y^2 = u_x^2 + v_x^2$

Proof. Per definition

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{\partial f}{\partial \overline{z}} &= \frac{1}{z}\left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x} + i\frac{\partial}{\partial y}\right)(u + iv) \\ &= \frac{1}{2}(u_x + iv_x + i(u_y + iv_y)) \\ &= \frac{1}{2}(u_x - v_y + i(v_x + u_y)) = 0, \end{aligned}$$

where we used the Cauchy Riemann equations in the last step.

Using the equations we derived for the CR-Equations we get

$$f'(z_0) = \frac{1}{2}(u_x + iv_x + v_y - iu_y) = \frac{1}{2}(f_x(z_0) + -if_y(z_0)).$$

But this is exactly $\frac{\partial f}{\partial z} f(x_0)$

The CR equation give

$$f'(z_0) = \frac{\partial}{\partial z} f(z_0) = u_x + iv_x = u_x - iu_y.$$

Reformulating, we find the result.

If $z_0 = x_0 + iy_0$ and $h = h_1 + h_2 i$, then since f is holomorphic at z_0,

$$f(z_0 + h) = f(z_0) + f'(z_0)h + h\varepsilon(h),$$

where $\lim_{h \to 0} \varepsilon(h) = 0$.

If $f'(z_0) = a + ib$, where $f' = u_x + iv_x = v_y - iu_y$, then

$$\begin{aligned} f'(z_0)h &= (a + ib)(h_1 + h_2 i) \\ &= (ah_1 - bh_2) + i(bh_1 + ah_2). \end{aligned}$$

If we write $\tilde{f}(x, y) = f(z)$ and $H = (h_1, h_2)$, then

$$\left[\tilde{f}((x_0, y_0) + (h_1, h_2)) - \tilde{f}(x_0, y_0) - \begin{pmatrix} a & -b \\ b & a \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} h_1 \\ h_2 \end{pmatrix}\right] / |H|,$$

goes to zero.

This says, that $\tilde{f} : \mathbb{R}^2 \to \mathbb{R}^2$ is differentiable with

$$J_{\tilde{f}}(x_0, y_0) = \begin{pmatrix} a & -b \\ b & a \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} u_x & -v_x \\ v_x & u_x \end{pmatrix}.$$

Hence, $\det J_{\tilde{f}} = a^2 + b^2 = |f'(z_0)|^2 = u_x^2 + v_x^2 = u_x^2 + u_y^2$.

□

Lec 4

Note, that the first equation,

$$\frac{\partial f}{\partial \overline{z}} = 0,$$

is a compact way to write the two Cauchy-Riemann equations.

Theorem 1.14:

Suppose $f = u + iv$ is a function $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$. If u and v are continuously differentiable and satisfy the Cauchy-Riemann equations on Ω, then f is holomorphic.

Note, that it would only be nesessary to have that u, v are totally differentiable.

Proof. Let $z_0 = (x_0, y_0) \in \Omega$ and $h = (h_1, h_2) \in \mathbb{C}$. Since u, v are continuously differentiable, we have that u_x, u_y, v_x, v_y exist and are continuous. From real analysis, we know that this implies that u and v are totally differentiable.

Hence,

$$u(z_0 + h) - u(z_0) = \partial_x u(z_0)h_1 + \partial_y u(z_0)h_2 + |h|\epsilon_1(h),$$

where $\epsilon_1(h) \to 0$ as $h \to 0$. Similarly,

$$v(z_0 + h) - v(z_0) = \partial_x v(z_0)h_1 + \partial_y v(z_0)h_2 + |h|\epsilon_2(h).$$

Combining these two equations, we have, letting $\epsilon(h) = \epsilon_1(h) + i\epsilon_2(h)$,

$$\begin{aligned} f(z_0 + h) - f(z_0) &= (u + iv)(z_0 + h) - (u + iv)(z_0) \\ &= (\partial_x u + i\partial_x v)h_1 + (\partial_y u + i\partial_y v)h_2 + |h|\epsilon(h) \\ &= (\partial_x u - i\partial_y u)h_1 + (\partial_y u + i\partial_x u)h_2 + |h|\epsilon(h) \\ &= (\partial_x u - i\partial_y u)(h_1 + ih_2) + |h|\epsilon(h). \end{aligned}$$

Since $\epsilon(h) \to 0$ as $h \to 0$, we have that

$$\lim_{h\to 0} \frac{f(z_0 + h) - f(z_0)}{h} = \partial_x u - i\partial_y u.$$

This implies, that f is differentiable at z_0 and its derivative is given by

$$\partial_x u - i\partial_y u = 2\frac{\partial}{\partial z} u.$$

□

Example 1.15: Application of Cauchy-Riemann

Let $f(z) = \underbrace{x^2 + y^2}_{u} + i\,\underbrace{2xy}_{v}$. When is f holomorphic?

We have

$$u_x = 2x, \quad u_y = 2y, \quad v_x = 2y, \quad v_y = 2x.$$

So u, v are continuously differentiable. They satsify the Cauchy-Riemann equations if and only if $2x = 2x$ and $2y = -2y$, which is true if and only if $y = 0$. Hence, f is holomorphic on the real line.

We've seen that for f holomorphic, $J_f = \begin{pmatrix} u_x & -v_x \\ v_x & u_x \end{pmatrix}$. Recall from linear algebra, that a linear map of the form $\begin{pmatrix} a & -b \\ b & a \end{pmatrix}$ is a map which preserves angles, as it is a composition of a rotation and a scaling. This follows, since a linear map $z \mapsto (z)(a + ib)$, when written in polar coordinates, is a rotation by $\arg(a + ib)$ and a scaling by $|a + ib|$.

Hence, a holomorphic map, locally preserves angles.

1.6 Power Series

A power series is a series of the form

$$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n z^n.$$

Theorem 1.16:

Let $\sum a_n z^n$ be a power series. Then $\exists R \in \mathbb{R}_{\geq 0} \cup \{\infty\}$ such that

1. If $|z| < R$, then the series converges absolutely.
2. If $|z| > R$, then the series diverges.

Moreover, with the convention that $\frac{1}{0} = \infty$ and $\frac{1}{\infty} = 0$, R is given by

$$\frac{1}{R} = \limsup_{n\to\infty} |a_n|^{1/n}.$$

R is called the RADIUS OF CONVERGENCE of the power series. $D_R(0)$ is called the DISK OF CONVERGENCE.

Proof. The proof of this is the same as in real analysis, and is left as an exercise. □

Example 1.17: Exponential Function

The complex exponential function is defined by the power series

$$\exp(z) := \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{z^n}{n!}.$$

It converges absolutely for all $z \in \mathbb{C}$, since

$$\limsup_{n\to\infty} |1/n!|^{1/n} = 0.$$

We will see, that e^z in particular and power series in general give holomorphic functions in their disk of convergence.

Theorem 1.18:

The power series $\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n z^n$ defines a holomorphic function on $D_R(0)$. It's derivative is given by

$$\left(\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} a_n z^n\right)' = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} n a_n z^{n-1}.$$

Moreover, f' has the same disk of convergence as f.

Proof. Let R be the radius of convergence of f. Since $\lim_{n\to\infty} n^{\frac{1}{n}} = 1$, we have that $\limsup_{n\to\infty} |na_n|^{1/n} = \limsup_{n\to\infty} |a_n|^{1/n} = \frac{1}{R}$. Hence, the series for f' has the same radius of convergence as f. Let $z \in \mathbb{C}$, such that $|z| < R$. Choose δ such that $|z| + \delta < R$. Then, for $|h| < \delta$, we want to show that $\frac{f(z+h)-f(z)}{h} - \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} na_n z^{n-1} \to 0$ as $h \to 0$. We have

$$\begin{aligned} &\left|\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{a_n(z + h)^n - a_n z^n}{h} - na_n z^{n-1}\right| \\ &\leq \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} |a_n| \left|\frac{1}{h}\left(\sum_{k=0}^{n} \binom{n}{k} z^{n-k}h^k - z^n\right) - nz^{n-1}\right| \\ &= \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} |a_n| \left|\sum_{k=2}^{n} \binom{n}{k} h^{k-1} z^{n-k}\right|. \end{aligned}$$

Since the first two terms cancel. Now, pulling out the first two terms of the binomial coefficient, we have

$$\begin{aligned}
&\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} |a_n| \left| \sum_{k=2}^{n} \binom{n}{k} h^{k-1} z^{n-k} \right| \\
&\leq \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} |a_n| (n(n-1)) \sum_{k=2}^{n} \binom{n-2}{k-2} |h|^{k-2} |z|^{n-k} |h| \\
&\leq |h| \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} |a_n| n(n-1)(|z|+|h|)^{n-2} \\
&\leq |h| \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} |a_n| n(n-1)(|z|+\delta)^{n-2}
\end{aligned}$$

Since $|z|+\delta < R$, the series $\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} |a_n| n(n-1)(|z|+\delta)^{n-2}$ converges. Hence, we have that this expression goes to 0 as $h \to 0$. Hence, f is holomorphic with the derivative given by the termwise derivative of the power series. □

Example 1.19:

The exponential function is an entire function and its derivative is given by

$$\frac{d}{dz} e^z = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \frac{n z^{n-1}}{n!} = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \frac{z^{n-1}}{(n-1)!} = \sum_{m=0}^{\infty} \frac{z^m}{m!} = e^z.$$

Example 1.20: Trigonometric Functions

We define the complex sine and cosine functions as

$$\cos(z) := \frac{e^{iz} + e^{-iz}}{2} = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{(-1)^n z^{2n}}{(2n)!},$$

$$\sin(z) := \frac{e^{iz} - e^{-iz}}{2i} = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{(-1)^n z^{2n+1}}{(2n+1)!}.$$

Both of these functions are entire.

As a warning, the complex sine and cosine functions are not bounded, unlike their real counterparts!

Example 1.21: Geometric Series

The geometric series is given by

$$\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} z^n = \frac{1}{1-z},$$

which converges for $|z| < 1$.

1.7 Complex Line Integrals

We like to recap some definitions.

Definition 1.22: Parametrized Curve

A PARAMETRIZED CURVE in $\mathbb{C}$ is a continuous function $\gamma : [a, b] \to \mathbb{C}$.

We call a curve SMOOTH if its derivative $\gamma'(t)$ exists and $\forall t \in [a, b]$, $\gamma'(t)$ is continuous and $\gamma'(t) \neq 0$.

A PIECEWISE SMOOTH curve is a curve γ such that $\exists$ points $a = a_0 < a_1 < \ldots < a_n = b$ such that $\gamma|_{[a_i, a_{i+1}]}$ is smooth for all $i = 0, \ldots, n-1$.

A CLOSED CURVE is a curve γ such that $\gamma(a) = \gamma(b)$. A curve is SIMPLE if it is not self-intersecting.

In the following we will always assume that a curve is piecewise smooth.

Definition 1.23: Reparametrization

A REPARAMETRIZATION of a curve $\gamma : [a, b] \to \mathbb{C}$ is a curve

$$\tilde{\gamma} : [c, d] \to \mathbb{C},$$

such that there exists a continuously differentiable function $\sigma : [c, d] \to [a, b]$ which is bijective and $\sigma'(t) > 0$ for all $t \in [c, d]$ and $\tilde{\gamma}(t) = \gamma(\sigma(t))$.

Example 1.24: Parametrized Line Segment

Given 2 points $z_1, z_2 \in \mathbb{C}$, the path

$$\gamma : [0, 1] \to \mathbb{C}, t \mapsto \gamma(t) = (1-t) z_1 + t z_2,$$

is the line segment between z_1 and z_2.

Example 1.25: Parametrized Circle

A circle of center $z_0 \in \mathbb{C}$ and radius $r > 0$ can be parametrized by

$$\gamma : [0, 2\pi] \to \mathbb{C}, t \mapsto (t) = z_0 + r e^{it}.$$

We want to define path integrals of complex functions. Recall that if g is a real-valued continuous function of a real variable, then it is Riemann-integrable. If g is complex valued $g : [a, b] \to \mathbb{C}, g(t) = u(t) + iv(t)$, then we define

$$\int_a^b g(t) \mathrm{d}t = \int_a^b u(t) \mathrm{d}t + i \int_a^b v(t) \mathrm{d}t.$$

Definition 1.26: Line Integral

Suppose $\gamma : [a, b] \to \Omega \subset \mathbb{C}$ is a piecewise smooth curve and $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ is defined and continuous on the curve. Then the LINE INTEGRAL of f along γ is defined by

$$\int_\gamma f(z) \mathrm{d}z = \int_a^b f(\gamma(t)) \gamma'(t) \mathrm{d}t.$$

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The line integral is independet of the parametrization of the curve. The proof of this is analogous to analysis II.

Proposition 1.27:

Given $f, g : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ continuous, γ_1, γ_2 2 piecewise smooth curves in Ω. Then

1. $\int_\gamma (af + bg)dz = a\int_\gamma f dz + b\int_\gamma g dz$ for $a, b \in \mathbb{C}$
2. If γ^- is the curve γ with reverse orientation, then $\int_{\gamma^-} f dz = -\int_\gamma f dz$
3. $\int_{\gamma_1+\gamma_2} f\mathrm{d}z = \int_{\gamma_1} f\mathrm{d}z + \int_{\gamma_2} f\mathrm{d}z$.
4. $\left|\int_\gamma f dz\right| \leq (\sup_{z\in\gamma} |f(z)|) \cdot L(\gamma)$, where $L(\gamma)$ is the length of the curve γ.

Here, the length of a piecewise smooth curve $\gamma : [a, b] \to \mathbb{C}$ is defined as

$$L(\gamma) = \sum_{i=0}^{n-1} \int_{a_i}^{a_{i+1}} |\gamma'(t)|\mathrm{d}t.$$

Definition 1.28: Primitive

Let $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$. A PRIMITIVE for f is a function F that is holomorphic on Ω and satisfies $F'(z) = f(z)$ for all $z \in \Omega$.

Existance of a primitive gives the following result.

Theorem 1.29: Fundamental Theorem for Line Integrals

Let $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ be continuous on an open set Ω. If f has a primitive F in Ω, and $\gamma : [a, b] \to \Omega$ is a curve, which starts at z_1 and ends at z_2, then

$$\int_\gamma f\mathrm{d}z = F(z_2) - F(z_1).$$

Proof. Let $F = U(x, y) + iV(x, y)$, where U, V are real valued functions and $\gamma : [a, b] \to \mathbb{C}$. We define a function

$$\begin{aligned} G : [a, b] &\longrightarrow \mathbb{C} \\ t &\longmapsto G(t) = F(\gamma(t)) = F((x(t), y(t))). \end{aligned}$$

We have to check the compatibility of the derivative of G and the complex derivative of F. We have

$$G'(t) = \frac{\partial U}{\partial x}\frac{dx}{dt} + \frac{\partial U}{\partial y}\frac{dy}{dt} + i\left(\frac{\partial V}{\partial x}\frac{dx}{dt} + \frac{\partial V}{\partial y}\frac{dy}{dt}\right).$$

Since F is holomorphic, we have the Cauchy-Riemann equations and can write

$$G'(t) = U_x(x, y)x'(t) - V_x(x, y)y'(t) + i\left(V_x(x, y)x'(t) + U_x(x, y)y'(t)\right).$$

Regrouping the terms, we get

$$G'(t) = \underbrace{(U_x + iV_x)}_{F'(x,y)}(x'(t) + iy'(t)) = F'(\gamma(t))\gamma'(t) = f(\gamma(t))\gamma'(t).$$

This shows, that

$$\int_\gamma f\mathrm{d}z = \int_a^b f(\gamma(t))\gamma'(t)dt = \int_a^b G'(t)dt.$$

This is now a real line integral and we can apply the fundamental theorem of calculus to get

$$\int_\gamma f\mathrm{d}z = G(b) - G(a) = F(\gamma(b)) - F(\gamma(a)) = F(z_2) - F(z_1).$$

□

Corollary 1.30:

If γ is a closed curve in Ω, f is continuous and has a primitive in Ω, then

$$\int_\gamma f\mathrm{d}z = 0.$$

Corollary 1.31:

If $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ is holomorphic, where Ω is open and connected. If $f' = 0$, then f is constant.

Proof. We want to show, that for any two points $z, w \in \Omega$ $f(z) = f(w)$. Since Ω is open and connected, there is a polygonal path $\gamma : [a, b] \to \Omega$ connecting z and w. Since f is holomorphic, it is the primitive for its derivative f'. By the fundamental theorem of line integrals, we have

$$\int_\gamma f'\mathrm{d}z = f(w) - f(z) = 0.$$

□

Example 1.32:

Given $f : \mathbb{C} \setminus \{0\} \to \mathbb{C}, f(z) = \frac{1}{z}$. Then f has no primitive on $\mathbb{C} \setminus \{0\}$.

Let γ be the unit circle, $\gamma : [0, 2\pi] - > \mathbb{C}, t \mapsto e^{it}$. Then

$$\int_\gamma f\mathrm{d}z = \int_0^{2\pi} \frac{1}{e^{it}} ie^{it}dt = 2\pi i \neq 0.$$

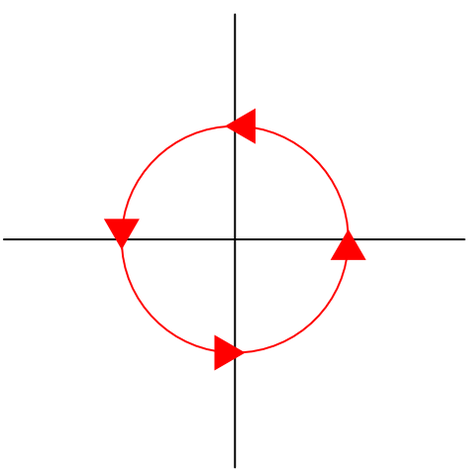


Figure 2: parametrization of the unit circle

2 Cauchy's Theorem on a disc

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If f is holomorphic on a disk D, γ is a closed curve such that γ and its interior are contained in D, then $\int_\gamma f\mathrm{d}z = 0$. This has many application.

Theorem 2.1: Goursat's Theorem

Let $\Omega \subset \mathbb{C}$ be open, $T \subset \Omega$ is a triangle whose interior is contained in Ω. Let $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ be holomorphic. Then

$$\int_T f\mathrm{d}z = 0.$$

For the proof, we will make use the following proposition.

Proposition 2.2: Compact nested sets

If $K_1 \supset K_2 \supset K_3 \supset \ldots$ is a sequence of compact nested sets in $\mathbb{C}$ with the property, that the diameter of the sets tends to zero, then $\exists$ a unique point $z_0 \in \mathbb{C}$ such that $z_0 \in K_n$ for all $n \in \mathbb{N}$.

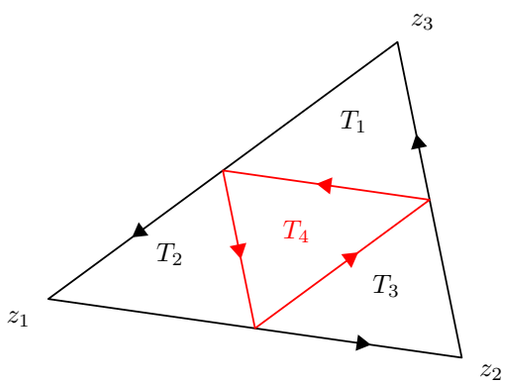


Figure 3: Proof of Goursats Theorem

Proof. Note that a triangle is a closed curve, which is the union of three line segments. If T has three corners z_1, z_2, z_3, then we can write $T =< z_1, z_2, z_3 >= \alpha_1 + \alpha_2 + \alpha_3$, where α_i are the line segments connecting the corners.

$$\begin{aligned}\alpha_1 &= z_1 + (t-0)(z_2 - z_1), \quad t \in [0,1]\\ \alpha_2 &= z_2 + (t-1)(z_3 - z_2), \quad t \in [1,2]\\ \alpha_3 &= z_3 + (t-2)(z_1 - z_3), \quad t \in [2,3].\end{aligned}$$

We also write $\Delta = \{z \in \mathbb{C} | z = t_1 z_1 + t_2 z_2 + t_3 z_3\}$, such that $T = \partial\Delta$. We will inductively construct a sequence of triangular paths. We define

$$T^{(n)} =< z_1^{(n)}, z_2^{(n)}, z_3^{(n)} >$$

as follows:

$$T^{(0)} =< z_1, z_2, z_3 > .$$

When $T^{(n)}$ is defined, we define $T^{(n+1)}$ as one of the 4 triangular paths

$$\begin{aligned}T_1^{(n)} &= \left\langle \frac{z_1^{(n)} + z_2^{(n)}}{2}, z_2^{(n)}, \frac{z_2^{(n)} + z_3^{(n)}}{2} \right\rangle\\ T_2^{(n)} &= \left\langle z_1^{(n)}, \frac{z_1^{(n)} + z_2^{(n)}}{2}, \frac{z_1^{(n)} + z_3^{(n)}}{2} \right\rangle\\ T_3^{(n)} &= \left\langle \frac{z_1^{(n)} + z_3^{(n)}}{2}, \frac{z_2^{(n)} + z_3^{(n)}}{2}, z_3^{(n)} \right\rangle\\ T_4^{(n)} &= \left\langle \frac{z_1^{(n)} + z_2^{(n)}}{2}, \frac{z_1^{(n)} + z_3^{(n)}}{2}, \frac{z_2^{(n)} + z_3^{(n)}}{2} \right\rangle.\end{aligned}$$

At each step, we partition Δ into 4 new ones by taking midpoints of the sides of T.

We have, that

$$\begin{aligned}\int_{T^{(n)}} f\mathrm{d}z &= \int_{T_1^{(n)}} f\mathrm{d}z + \int_{T_2^{(n)}} f\mathrm{d}z + \int_{T_3^{(n)}} f\mathrm{d}z + \int_{T_4^{(n)}} f\mathrm{d}z\\ &\le 4 \max_{i=1,2,3,4} |\int_{T_i^{(n)}} f\mathrm{d}z|.\end{aligned}$$

We choose $T^{(n+1)}$ as one of $T_i^{(n)}$ such that

$$\left|int_{T^{(n)}} f\mathrm{d}z\right| \le 4\left|\int_{T^{(n+1)}} f\mathrm{d}z\right|.$$

But now recursively, we get

$$\left|\int_{T^{(n)}} f\mathrm{d}z\right| \le 4^n \left|\int_{T^{(0)}} f\mathrm{d}z\right|.$$

The closed filled triangles $\Delta^{(n)}$ corresponding to $T^{(n)}$ are nested compact sets, i.e.

$$\Delta = \Delta^{(0)} \supset \Delta^{(1)} \supset \Delta^{(2)} \supset \ldots.$$

Moreover, if $\mathrm{diam}(\Delta) := \sup\{|z-w| : z, w \in \Delta\} =: d$, and d_n and P_n are the diameters and perimeters of the triangles $\Delta^{(n)}$, then $d_n = \frac{d}{2^n}$ and $P_n = \frac{P}{2^n}$.

Hence, $\mathrm{diam}(\Delta^{(n)}) \to 0$ as $n \to \infty$. By compact nested sets, there is a unique point $z_0 \in \mathbb{C}$ such that $z_0 \in \Delta^{(n)}$ for all $n \in \mathbb{N}$.

Going back to our integrals, we have, since f is holomorphic at z_0,i.e.

$$f(z) = f(z_0) + f'(z_0)(z - z_0) + \epsilon(z), \quad \text{where } \epsilon(z) \to 0 \text{ as } z \to z_0.$$

Notice, that $\epsilon(z)$ is continous at z_0 and $\lim_{z\to z_0} \epsilon(z) = 0$.

$$\begin{aligned}I &:= \left|\int_{T^{(0)}} f\mathrm{d}z\right| \le 4^n \left|\int_{T^{(n)}} f\mathrm{d}z\right|\\ &= 4^n \left|\int_{T^{(n)}} f(z_0) + f'(z_0)(z - z_0)\mathrm{d}z + \int_{T^{(n)}} \epsilon(z)\mathrm{d}z\right|.\end{aligned}$$

The first integral is zero, since

$$G(z) = f(z_0)z + \frac{f'(z_0)}{2}z^2$$

is a primitive of $f(z_0) + f'(z_0)(z - z_0)$. Hence, we have

$$I \le 4^n \left|\int_{T^{(n)}} \epsilon(z)\mathrm{d}z\right|.$$

For a given $\varepsilon > 0$, choose an open disc $D_\delta(z_0) \subset \Omega$ such that

$$|\epsilon(z)| < \varepsilon|z - z_0|, \quad \forall z \in D_\delta(z_0).$$

Because $\mathrm{diam}(\Delta^{(n)}) \to 0$, there exists $N \in \mathbb{N}$ such that $d_n < \delta$ for all $n \ge N$. Hence, we have $z_0 \in \Delta^{(n)}$ and $\forall z \in \Delta^{(n)}$, $|z - z_0| < d_n < \delta$. Therefore, we have

$$\Delta^{(n)} \subset D_\delta(z_0), \quad \forall n \ge N.$$

In total,

$$\begin{aligned}|I| &\le 4^n \left|\int_{T^{(n)}} \epsilon(z)\mathrm{d}z\right|\\ &\le 4^n \int_{T^{(n)}} |\epsilon(z)||dz|\\ &\le 4^n \varepsilon \int_{T^{(n)}} |z - z_0||dz|\\ &\le 4^n \varepsilon d_n L(T^{(n)})\\ &= 4^n \varepsilon \frac{d}{2^n}\frac{P}{2^n} = \varepsilon dP.\end{aligned}$$

Letting $\varepsilon \to 0$, we get $|I| = 0$, which proves the theorem. □

Corollary 2.3:

If $f : \Omega \to \mathbb{C}$ is holomorphic, the open set Ω contains a Recatangle $\mathcal{R}$ and its interior R such that $\partial R = \mathcal{R}$, then

$$\int_{\mathcal{R}} f\mathrm{d}z = 0.$$

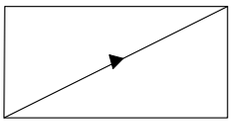


Figure 4: rectangle

Proof. We split the rectangle into two triangles by drawing a diagonal. Then we can apply Goursat's theorem to each triangle and get the result. □

Theorem 2.4: Goursat

If a function f is continuous in an open subset $\Omega \subset \mathbb{C}$ and holomorphic in $\Omega \setminus \{z_0\}$, then

$$\int_{\mathcal{R}} f(z)\mathrm{d}z = 0.$$

For every closed rectangle $\mathcal{R} \subset \Omega$.

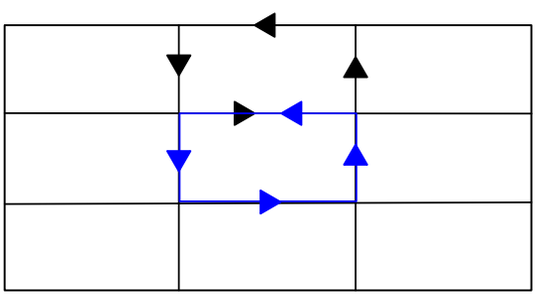


Figure 5: Goursat's theorem for a rectangle

Proof. For a closed rectangle $R \subset \Omega$, we assume $z_0 \in \mathcal{R}$, otherwise the conclusion follows from the previous version.

Given a positive integer n, we divide $\mathcal{R}$ into n^2 congruent ones. Once again, it is clear, that

$$\int_{\mathcal{R}} f(z)\mathrm{d}z = \sum_{k=1}^{n}\sum_{l=1}^{n}\int_{\mathcal{R}_{k,l}} f(z)\mathrm{d}z.$$

If $z_0 \notin \mathcal{R}_{k,l}$, then $\int_{\mathcal{R}_{k,l}} f(z)\mathrm{d}z = 0$ by the previous version of Goursat's theorem. If $z_0 \in \mathcal{R}_{k,l}$, then we have

$$\int_{\mathcal{R}_{k,l}} f(z)\mathrm{d}z \leq M\text{perimeter}(\mathcal{R}_{k,l}) = \frac{ML}{n}.$$

Where, $M = \max_{z\in\mathcal{R}} |f(z)|$ and L is the perimeter of $\mathcal{R}$.

But notice, that we have at most four rectangles containing z_0, hence letting $n \to \infty$, we get

$$\left|\int_{\mathcal{R}} f(z)\mathrm{d}z\right| \leq 4\frac{ML}{n} \to 0.$$

□

To prove Cauchy's theorem in a disc, we need the following theorem.

Theorem 2.5:

A holomorphic function on an open disc, has a primitive in that disc.

Instead, we'll prove the following version

Theorem 2.6:

Let D be an open disc in $\mathbb{C}$, f continuous on D with the property that $\int_{\mathcal{R}} f(z)\mathrm{d}z = 0$ for every closed rectangle $R \subset D$, whose sides are parallel to the coordinate axes. Then f has a primitive in D.

Proof. f is continuous in the disc. Let $z_0 = x_0 + iy_0 \in D$. Let this be the center of the disk. For an arbitrary point $z \in D$, such that $z \neq z_0$, let

$$z_1 = x + iy_0, \quad z_2 = x_0 + iy.$$

By assumption,

$$\int_{z_0}^{z_1} f(w)\mathrm{d}w + \int_{z_1}^{z} f(w)\mathrm{d}w + \int_{z}^{z_2} f(w)\mathrm{d}w + \int_{z_2}^{z_0} f(w)\mathrm{d}w = 0.$$

We define $F : D \to \mathbb{C}$ as: For $z \in D$, let

$$F(z) := \int_{z_0}^{z_2} f(w)\mathrm{d}w + \int_{z_2}^{z} f(w)\mathrm{d}w.$$

As shown, we can also write

$$F(z) = \int_{z_0}^{z_1} f(w)\mathrm{d}w + \int_{z_1}^{z} f(w)\mathrm{d}w.$$

We parametrize the line segments

$$\begin{aligned} F(z) &:= i\int_{y_0}^{y} f(x_0 + it)\mathrm{d}t + \int_{x_0}^{x} f(t + iy)\mathrm{d}t \\ &= \int_{x_0}^{x} f(t + iy_0)\mathrm{d}t + i\int_{y_0}^{y} f(x + it)\mathrm{d}t. \end{aligned}$$

Note that for the first equation, the first integral is independent of x, and the second one, when we differentiate with respect to x, we get by the fundamental theorem of calculus, that

$$\frac{\partial F}{\partial x} = f(x + iy).$$

Doing the same for the second equation, we get

$$\frac{\partial F}{\partial y} = if(x + iy).$$

Combining the equations, we have

$$F_x = f(z), F_y = if(z) \Rightarrow f(z) = F_x = -iF_y.$$

Exercise: Check the CR equations for F and conclude that F is holomorphic in D and $F'(z) = f(z)$. □

Note that this theorem as a corollary gives us Cauchy's theorem in a disc

Theorem 2.7: Cauchy's theorem in a disc

Let $D \subset \mathbb{C}$ be an open disc, $f : D \to \mathbb{C}$ holomorphic (or more generally continuous on D and holomorphic on $D \setminus \{z_0\}$ for some $z_0 \in D$). Then

$$\int_{\gamma} f(z)\mathrm{d}z = 0,$$

for every closed, piecewise smooth curve γ in D, whose interior is contained in D.

Proof. Suppose f is holomorphic on $D \setminus \{z_0\}$ for some $z_0 \in D$. Then by Goursat's theorem, the integral of f along any rectangle is zero. In particular also the ones whose sides are parallel to the coordinate

axes. Hence, by the previous theorem, f has a primitive in D. By the fundamental theorem of line integrals, we have

$$\int_\gamma f(z)\mathrm{d}z = 0.$$

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□

Corollary 2.8:

Suppose f is holomorphic in an open set $\Omega \subset \mathbb{C}$ containing a circle C and its interior. Then

$$\int_C f(z)\,dz = 0.$$

Proof. Since Ω is open, there exists a disk D centered at the center of C such that $D \subset \Omega$. By Cauchy's theorem, we have

$$\int_C f(z)\,dz = 0.$$

□

Recall that in showing that f has a primitive in a disc, we used a polygonal path to define

$$F(z) = \int_{\gamma_z} f(w)\,dw.$$

In the corollary, circles, rectangles and other polygons are curves whose interior are easy to define. We call them TOY CONTOURS. Inside each of these toy contours, we can define a primitive of f by integrating along a path from a fixed point to z.

Example 2.9:

We claim that $\int_R \frac{1}{z-z_0}\,dz = 2\pi i$ for any Rectangle with center at z_0.

Recall, that $\int_C \frac{1}{z-z_0}\,dz = 2\pi i$ for any circle C with center at z_0. Now, consider a large circle D with z_0 on its boundary. Note that $f = \frac{1}{z-z_0}$ is holomorphic in the interior of D. Now the curve $\beta_1+\gamma_1$ is a closed curve in the disc. So by Cauchy's theorem, we have

$$\int_{\beta_1} \frac{1}{z-z_0}\,dz + \int_{\gamma_1} \frac{1}{z-z_0}\,dz = 0.$$

Doing the same for all other sides of the rectangle, we have

$$2\pi i = \int_C \frac{1}{z-z_0}\,dz = \int_R \frac{1}{z-z_0}\,dz = \int_R \frac{1}{z-z_0}\,dz.$$

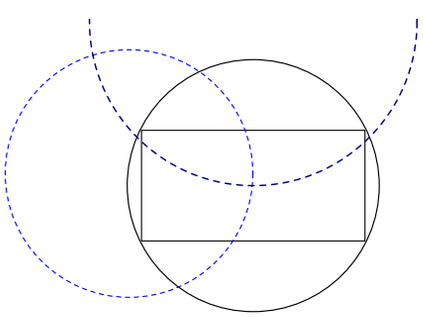


Figure 6: Transforming the curve

Example 2.10:

Show that $\int_0^\infty \cos(x^2)\,dx = \int_0^\infty \sin(x^2)\,dx = \frac{\sqrt{2\pi}}{4}$.

Solution. We want to show that $\lim_{r\to\infty}\int_0^r \cos(x^2)\,dx = \lim_{r\to\infty}\int_0^r \sin(x^2)\,dx = \frac{\sqrt{2\pi}}{4}$. Note, that $\cos(x^2)+i\sin(x^2) = e^{ix^2}$. ie we want to show that

$$\lim_{r\to\infty}\int_0^r e^{ix^2}\,dx = (1+i)\frac{\sqrt{2\pi}}{4}.$$

This leads to the holomorphic function $f(z) = e^{iz^2}$. Considering the line γ_1 from 0 to r, we have

$$\int_{\gamma_1} f(z)\,dz = \int_0^r e^{ix^2}\,dx.$$

We now consider the line γ_2 from 0 to $re^{i\pi/4}$ along constant radius. Lastly γ_3 is the line from $re^{i\pi/4}$ to 0. Since f is holomorphic everywhere, and $\gamma_1+\gamma_2+\gamma_3$ is a closed curve, we have

$$\int_{\gamma_1+\gamma_2+\gamma_3} f(z)\,dz = 0.$$

We will use the following parametrizations

$$\begin{aligned}
\gamma_1(t) &= t, && 0 \le t \le r\\
\gamma_2(t) &= re^{it}, && 0 \le t \le \frac{\pi}{4}\\
\gamma_3(t) &= (r-t)e^{i\pi/4}, && 0 \le t \le r.
\end{aligned}$$

Hence we have

$$\begin{aligned}
\int_0^r e^{ix^2}\,dx &= -\int_{\gamma_2} f(z)\,dz - \int_{\gamma_3} f(z)\,dz\\
&= -\int_0^{\pi/4} e^{i(r^2e^{2it})}ire^{it}\,dt - \int_0^r e^{i((r-t)^2e^{i\pi/2})}e^{i\pi/4}\,dt
\end{aligned}$$

$$\int_0^\infty e^{ix^2}\,dx = -\lim_{r\to\infty}\int_0^{\pi/4} e^{i(r^2e^{2it})}ire^{it}\,dt - \frac{\sqrt{\pi}}{2}e^{i\pi/4}.$$

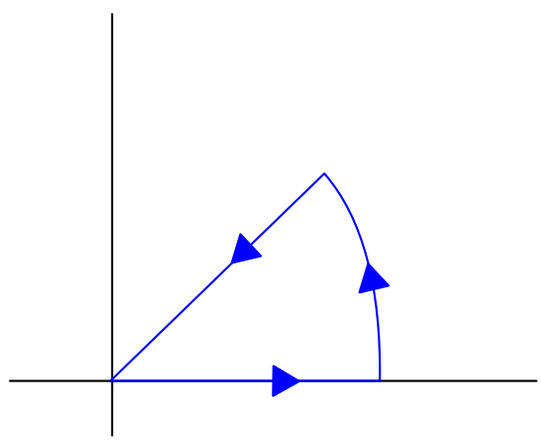


Figure 7: Curve used for the Fresnel integrals

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